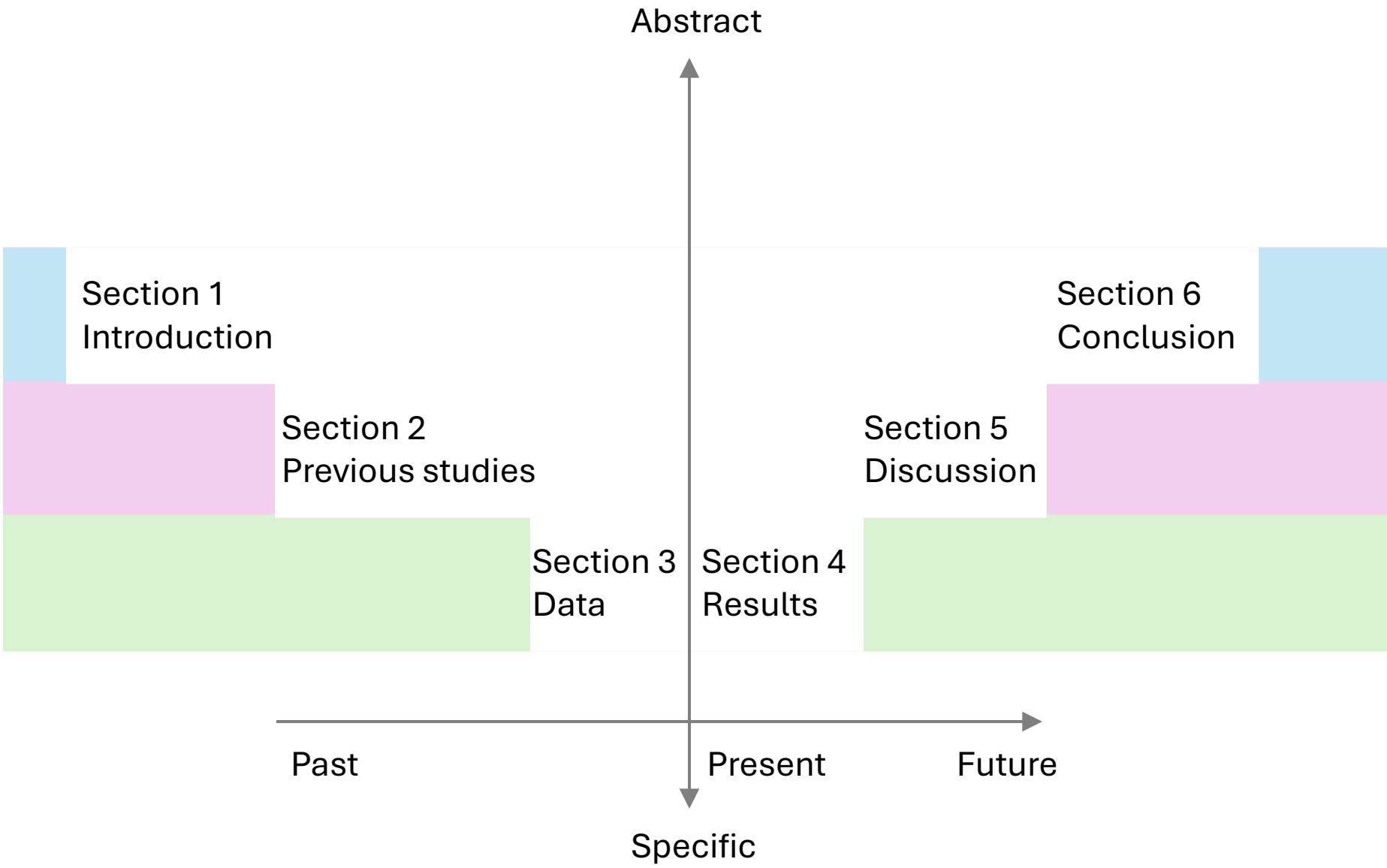
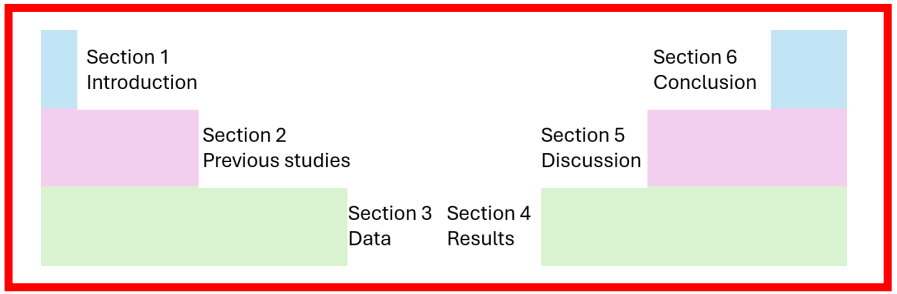
Class 2

Academic reading 1: Introduction

Corpus research 1: Tagging 1 (English)

Organization of a research paper





Second Language Research 16,4 (2000); pp. 293–324

What is happened may not be what appears to be happening: a corpus study of 'passive' unaccusatives in L2 English

Hiroyuki Oshita *Ohio University*

Second Language (L2) researchers have been studying 'passive' unaccusative errors such as *What was happened?*, but have not yet reached a consensus about the ultimate cause of this unique interlanguage structure. This article critically reviews five major accounts proposed in the literature, namely:

- transfer of a compound tense/aspect structure in the learner's first language (L1);
- overgeneralization of adjectival passive formation in English;
- nontarget lexical causativization;
- identification of the passive morphosyntax with the lack of a logical subject; and
- nontarget overt marking of syntactic NP movement.

By analysing each account in terms of its ramifications in light of the data already available in the literature and additional data from a large corpus of nonnative English, I demonstrate that the most plausible account of the 'passive' unaccusative structure is to regard it as an overt marker of NP movement, an overgeneralization of the passive morphosyntax of the target English.

Abstract

Topic 'passive' unaccusative errrors

Past Cause: unclear

Present

a. Review: Five accounts

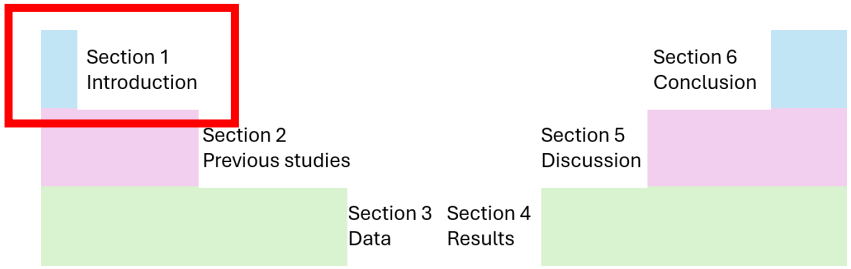
b. Data: corpus

c. Cocl.: Overpassivization of passive morphosyntax

Structure of a paper: contrast

Previous literature: ...

Current paper: ...



I Introduction

Until recent years, the scarcity of serious research on lexical development was a concern for Second Language (L2) researchers interested in the grammatical analysis of interlanguage (IL) systems (Gass and Schachter, 1989: 201; Gass and Selinker, 1994: 270; Juffs, 1996: 1–2). An indication that this situation has finally started to change is seen, for instance, in the amount of investigation recently and currently conducted with special focus on the acquisition of grammatical properties of verbs (e.g., Sorace, 1993; 1995; Yip, 1994; 1995; Balcom, 1995; 1997; Hirakawa, 1995; 1997a; 1997b; 1999; Juffs, 1996; Shomura, 1996; Hwang, 1997; Oshita, 1997; 1998; Montrul, 1997; 1999; Han, 1998; Yuan, 1999; Ju, 2000). One of the most conspicuous IL English phenomena that many of these studies have noted is exemplified in (1):

1) a. * The most memorable experience of my life was happened 15 years ago.

The errors such as (1a)–(1e) are by no means a recent discovery because L2 researchers working in the error analysis paradigm already noted them in the 1970s (e.g., Burt and Kiparsky, 1972; Richards, 1973; Schachter and Hart, 1979). Their significance for theoretical and applied linguistics, however, was not fully perceived until Hubbard (1983, reported in Hubbard, 1994: 55–56) pointed out that the overwhelming majority of them (e.g., more than 90% of his own findings in nonnative compositions) appear with a particular class of intransitive verbs known as unaccusatives, and that these errors are more common among relatively advanced learners than low proficiency students (Hubbard and Hix, 1988; see also, Yip, 1995; Hwang, 1997; Han, 1998; Ju, 2000).

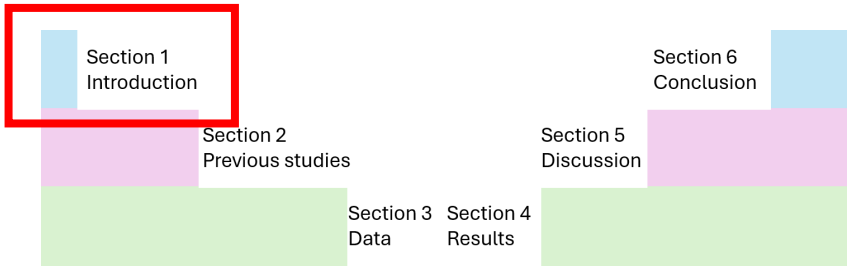
According to the unaccusative hypothesis (Perlmutter, 1978; Burzio, 1986), unaccusative verbs (e.g., *arrive* and *fall*) are one of the two major classes of intransitive verbs and contrast with unergative verbs (e.g., *laugh* and *walk*). Although their distinction may be ultimately determined semantically (Labelle, 1990; Levin and Rappaport Hovav, 1995; Kageyama, 1996), it can be clearly illustrated at the argument structure level, where the lexicosyntactic properties of predicates are represented. The contrast between the two classes of intransitives becomes particularly clear when they are compared with transitive verbs (e.g., *crush* and *bring*) because the argument of unaccusatives exhibits the syntactic characteristics of the object of a transitive verb while that of unergatives behaves like the subject (Oshita, 1997; and references cited there).

2) a. Causative argument structure: (x <y>)
   b. Unaccusative argument structure: (ø <y>)
   c. Unergative argument structure: (x <ø>)

In (2), (x) and <y> stand for the external and the direct internal arguments, which correspond to the initial syntactic subject and object, respectively. The reason why the unaccusative/unergative distinction is not always obvious is that, through syntactic movement, the internal argument of unaccusatives often assumes the surface subject role as does the external argument of unergatives. Furthermore, some alternating unaccusatives such as *break* and *increase* exhibit transitive as well as intransitive syntactic behaviour[1] because they have the dyadic argument structure of (2a) in addition to the monadic (2b).[2] The verbal classifications just discussed are summarized in (3):

The primary aim of this article is to address the issue of the 'origin' of the IL English phenomenon[3] exemplified in (1a)–(1e), which is referred to here as the 'passive' unaccusative, due to its apparent resemblance to the English passive construction with the auxiliary verb *be* followed by the past participle of a transitive verb. I review the following five major accounts of this structure found in the L2 acquisition literature:

With each one of these accounts, I carefully tease out and consider the linguistic questions involved. I show that most of these accounts are, at best questionable in light of the data and observations currently available in the literature; even the most promising analysis requires more extensive data to be fully supported. Accordingly, the second half of the article re-examines the previous analyses with a new set of crosslinguistic data obtained from a large corpus of L2 English. Finally, I argue that when all things are considered, the most plausible account of the 'passive' unaccusative structure is to regard it as an overt marker of syntactic NP movement, which is an overgeneralization of the passive morphosyntax of the target English.



I Introduction

Until recent years, the scarcity of serious research on lexical development was a concern for Second Language (L2) researchers interested in the grammatical analysis of interlanguage (IL) systems

Topics

- General concern: Interlanguage
- Specific phenomenon: [1]

conspicuous IL English phenomena that many of these studies have noted is exemplified in (1):

1) a. * The most memorable experience of my life was happened 15 years ago.

Previous literature

- 1970s: people knew the errors
- 1980s-: notable generalizations
  - 1) Skewed distribution
  - 2) Relatively advanced learners > beginners

According to the unaccusative hypothesis (Perlmutter, 1978; Burzio, 1986), unaccusative verbs (e.g., *arrive* and *fall*) are one of the two major classes of intransitive verbs and contrast with unergative verbs (e.g., *laugh* and *walk*). Although their distinction may be ultimately determined semantically (Labelle, 1990; Levin and Rappaport Hovav, 1995; Kageyama, 1996), it can be clearly illustrated at the argument structure level, where the lexicosyntactic

Commentary: unaccusatives

- Transitives
- Intransitives
  - A. unaccusatives
  - B. unergatives

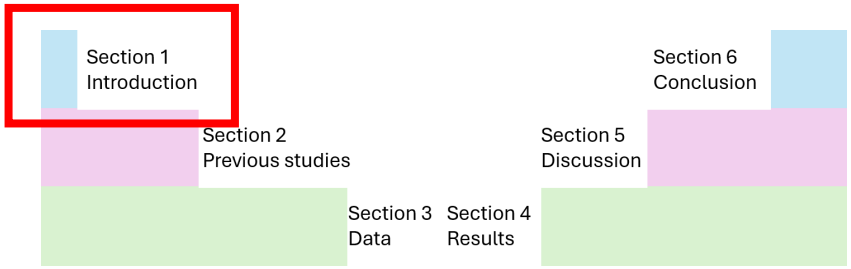
distinction is not always obvious is that, through syntactic movement, the internal argument of unaccusatives often assumes the surface subject role as does the external argument of unergatives. Furthermore, some alternating unaccusatives such as *break* and *increase* exhibit transitive as well as intransitive syntactic behaviour[1] because they have the dyadic argument structure of (2a) in addition to the monadic (2b).[2] The verbal classifications just discussed are summarized in (3):

The primary aim of this article is to address the issue of the 'origin' of the IL English phenomenon[3] exemplified in (1a)–(1e), which is referred to here as the 'passive' unaccusative, due to its apparent resemblance to the English passive construction with the auxiliary verb *be* followed by the past participle of a transitive verb.

Current paper

- Discussing the origin of 'passive' unaccuatives
- RQ: what is the most plausible account?
- Claim: Overt marker of NP movement

movement, which is an overgeneralization of the passive morphosyntax of the target English.



Topics

- General concern: Interlanguage
- Specific phenomenon: [1]

I Introduction

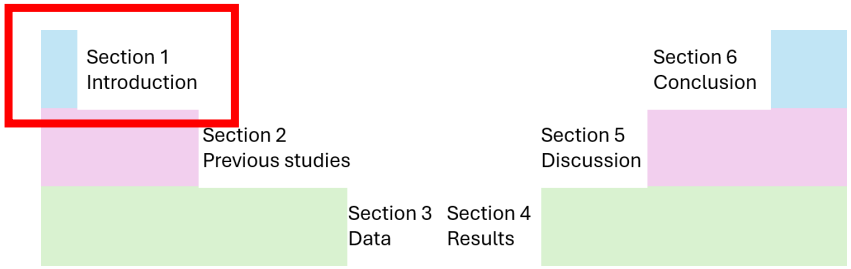
Until recent years, the scarcity of serious research on lexical development was a concern for Second Language (L2) researchers interested in the grammatical analysis of interlanguage (IL) systems (Gass and Schachter, 1989: 201; Gass and Selinker, 1994: 270; Juffs, 1996: 1–2). An indication that this situation has finally started to change is seen, for instance, in the amount of investigation recently and currently conducted with special focus on the acquisition of grammatical properties of verbs (e.g., Sorace, 1993; 1995; Yip, 1994; 1995; Balcom, 1995; 1997; Hirakawa, 1995; 1997a; 1997b; 1999; Juffs, 1996; Shomura, 1996; Hwang, 1997; Oshita, 1997; 1998; Montrul, 1997; 1999; Han, 1998; Yuan, 1999; Ju, 2000). One of the most conspicuous IL English phenomena that many of these studies have noted is exemplified in (1):

1) a. * The most memorable experience of my life was happened 15 years ago.

The errors such as (1a)–(1e) are by no means a recent discovery because L2 researchers working in the error analysis paradigm already noted them in the 1970s (e.g., Burt and Kiparsky, 1972; Richards, 1973; Schachter and Hart, 1979). Their significance for theoretical and applied linguistics, however, was not fully perceived until Hubbard (1983, reported in Hubbard, 1994: 55–56) pointed out that the overwhelming majority of them (e.g., more than 90% of his own findings in nonnative compositions) appear with a particular class of intransitive verbs known as unaccusatives, and that these errors are more common among relatively advanced learners than low proficiency students (Hubbard and Hix, 1988; see also, Yip, 1995; Hwang, 1997; Han, 1998; Ju, 2000).

Previous literature

- 1970s: people knew the errors
- 1980s-: notable generalizations
  - 1) Skewed distribution
  - 2) Relatively advanced learners
    > beginners



I Introduction

Until recent years, the scarcity of serious research on lexical development was a concern for Second Language (L2) researchers interested in the grammatical analysis of interlanguage (IL) systems (Gass and Schachter, 1989: 201; Gass and Selinker, 1994: 270; Juffs, 1996: 1–2). An indication that this situation has finally started to change is seen, for instance, in the amount of investigation recently and currently conducted with special focus on the acquisition of grammatical properties of verbs (e.g., Sorace, 1993; 1995; Yip, 1994; 1995; Balcom, 1995; 1997; Hirakawa, 1995; 1997a; 1997b; 1999; Juffs, 1996; Shomura, 1996; Hwang, 1997; Oshita, 1997; 1998; Montrul, 1997; 1999; Han, 1998; Yuan, 1999; Ju, 2000). One of the most conspicuous IL English phenomena that many of these studies have noted is exemplified in (1):

1) a. * The most memorable experience of my life was happened 15 years ago.

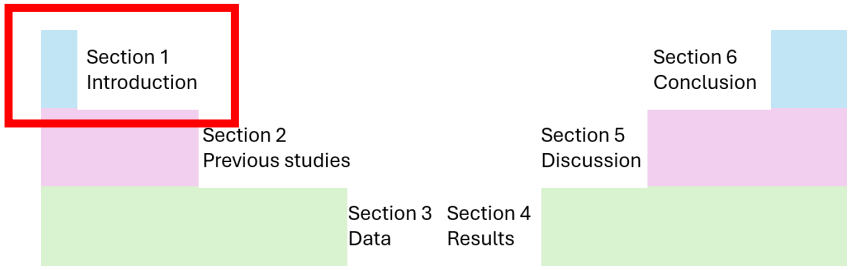
The errors such as (1a)–(1e) are by no means a recent discovery because L2 researchers working in the error analysis paradigm already noted them in the 1970s (e.g., Burt and Kiparsky, 1972; Richards, 1973; Schachter and Hart, 1979). Their significance for theoretical and applied linguistics, however, was not fully perceived until Hubbard (1983, reported in Hubbard, 1994: 55–56) pointed out that the overwhelming majority of them (e.g., more than 90% of his own findings in nonnative compositions) appear with a particular class of intransitive verbs known as unaccusatives, and that these errors are more common among relatively advanced learners than low proficiency students (Hubbard and Hix, 1988; see also, Yip, 1995; Hwang, 1997; Han, 1998; Ju, 2000).

Topics

- General concern: Interlanguage
  - **Gass & Schachter (1989)**
  - **Gass and Selinker (1994)**
  - **Juffs (1996)**
- Specific phenomenon: **Verbs**
  - **Sorace (1993, 1995)**
  - **Yip (1994, 1995)**
  - **Balcom (1995, 1997)**
  - **Hirakawa (1995, 1997ab, 1999)**
  - **Juffs (1996)**
  - **Shomura (1996)**
  - **Hwang (1997)**
  - **Oshita (1997, 1998)**
  - **Montrul (1997, 1999)**
  - **Han (1998)**
  - **Yuan (1999)**
  - **Ju (2000)**

Previous literature

- 1970s: people knew the errors
- 1980s-: notable generalizations
  - 1) Skewed distribution
  - 2) Relatively advanced learners > beginners



I Introduction

Until recent years, the scarcity of serious research on lexical development was a concern for Second Language (L2) researchers interested in the grammatical analysis of interlanguage (IL) systems (Gass and Schachter, 1989: 201; Gass and Selinker, 1994: 270; Juffs, 1996: 1–2). An indication that this situation has finally started to change is seen, for instance, in the amount of investigation recently and currently conducted with special focus on the acquisition of grammatical properties of verbs (e.g., Sorace, 1993; 1995; Yip, 1994; 1995; Balcom, 1995; 1997; Hirakawa, 1995; 1997a; 1997b; 1999; Juffs, 1996; Shomura, 1996; Hwang, 1997; Oshita, 1997; 1998; Montrul, 1997; 1999; Han, 1998; Yuan, 1999; Ju, 2000). One of the most conspicuous IL English phenomena that many of these studies have noted is exemplified in (1):

1) a. * The most memorable experience of my life was happened 15 years ago.

The errors such as (1a)–(1e) are by no means a recent discovery because L2 researchers working in the error analysis paradigm already noted them in the 1970s (e.g., Burt and Kiparsky, 1972; Richards, 1973; Schachter and Hart, 1979). Their significance for theoretical and applied linguistics, however, was not fully perceived until Hubbard (1983, reported in Hubbard, 1994: 55–56) pointed out that the overwhelming majority of them (e.g., more than 90% of his own findings in nonnative compositions) appear with a particular class of intransitive verbs known as unaccusatives, and that these errors are more common among relatively advanced learners than low proficiency students (Hubbard and Hix, 1988; see also, Yip, 1995; Hwang, 1997; Han, 1998; Ju, 2000).

Topics

- General concern: Interlanguage
- Specific phenomenon: **Verbs**

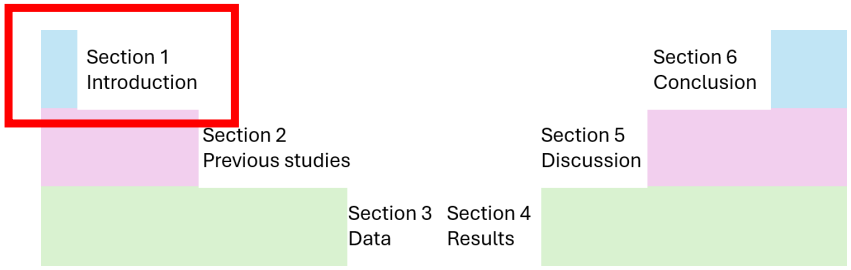
Previous literature

- 1970s: people knew the errors

(1) a. Subject was happened.

b. Subject happened.

- 1980s-: notable generalizations
  - 1) Skewed distribution
  - 2) Relatively advanced learners > beginners



Topics

- General concern: Interlanguage
- Specific phenomenon: **Verbs**

Previous literature

- 1970s: people knew the errors

(1) a. Subject was happened.

b. Subject happened.

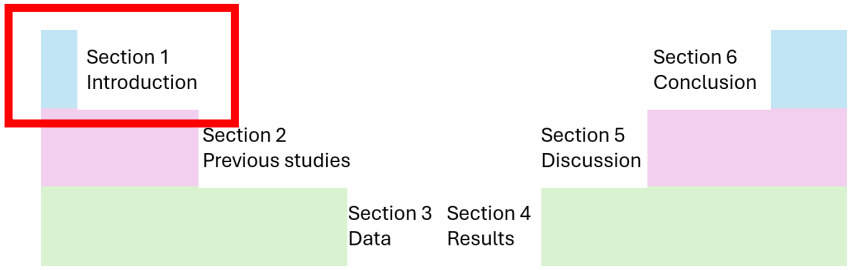
I Introduction

Until recent years, the scarcity of serious research on lexical development was a concern for Second Language (L2) researchers interested in the grammatical analysis of interlanguage (IL) systems (Gass and Schachter, 1989: 201; Gass and Selinker, 1994: 270; Juffs, 1996: 1–2). An indication that this situation has finally started to change is seen, for instance, in the amount of investigation recently and currently conducted with special focus on the acquisition of grammatical properties of verbs (e.g., Sorace, 1993; 1995; Yip, 1994; 1995; Balcom, 1995; 1997; Hirakawa, 1995; 1997a; 1997b; 1999; Juffs, 1996; Shomura, 1996; Hwang, 1997; Oshita, 1997; 1998; Montrul, 1997; 1999; Han, 1998; Yuan, 1999; Ju, 2000). One of the most conspicuous IL English phenomena that many of these studies have noted is exemplified in (1):

1) a. * The most memorable experience of my life was happened 15 years ago.

The errors such as (1a)–(1e) are by no means a recent discovery because L2 researchers working in the error analysis paradigm already noted them in the 1970s (e.g., Burt and Kiparsky, 1972; Richards, 1973; Schachter and Hart, 1979). Their significance for theoretical and applied linguistics, however, was not fully perceived until Hubbard (1983, reported in Hubbard, 1994: 55–56) pointed out that the overwhelming majority of them (e.g., more than 90% of his own findings in nonnative compositions) appear with a particular class of intransitive verbs known as unaccusatives, and that these errors are more common among relatively advanced learners than low proficiency students (Hubbard and Hix, 1988; see also, Yip, 1995; Hwang, 1997; Han, 1998; Ju, 2000).

- 1980s-: notable generalizations
  - 1) Skewed distribution
  - 2) Relatively advanced learners
    > beginners



I Introduction

Until recent years, the scarcity of serious research on lexical development was a concern for Second Language (L2) researchers interested in the grammatical analysis of interlanguage (IL) systems (Gass and Schachter, 1989: 201; Gass and Selinker, 1994: 270; Juffs, 1996: 1–2). An indication that this situation has finally started to change is seen, for instance, in the amount of investigation recently and currently conducted with special focus on the acquisition of grammatical properties of verbs (e.g., Sorace, 1993; 1995; Yip, 1994; 1995; Balcom, 1995; 1997; Hirakawa, 1995; 1997a; 1997b; 1999; Juffs, 1996; Shomura, 1996; Hwang, 1997; Oshita, 1997; 1998; Montrul, 1997; 1999; Han, 1998; Yuan, 1999; Ju, 2000). One of the most conspicuous IL English phenomena that many of these studies have noted is exemplified in (1):

1) a. * The most memorable experience of my life was happened 15 years ago.

The errors such as (1a)–(1e) are by no means a recent discovery because L2 researchers working in the error analysis paradigm already noted them in the 1970s (e.g., Burt and Kiparsky, 1972; Richards, 1973; Schachter and Hart, 1979). Their significance for theoretical and applied linguistics, however, was not fully perceived until Hubbard (1983, reported in Hubbard, 1994: 55–56) pointed out that the overwhelming majority of them (e.g., more than 90% of his own findings in nonnative compositions) appear with a particular class of intransitive verbs known as unaccusatives, and that these errors are more common among relatively advanced learners than low proficiency students (Hubbard and Hix, 1988; see also, Yip, 1995; Hwang, 1997; Han, 1998; Ju, 2000).

Topics

- General concern: Interlanguage
- Specific phenomenon: **Verbs**

Previous literature

- 1970s: people knew the errors

(1) a. Subject was happened.

b. Subject happened.

- 1980s-: notable generalizations
  - 1) Skewed distribution
    - a. **Unaccusatives**

many (i) Subject was happened.

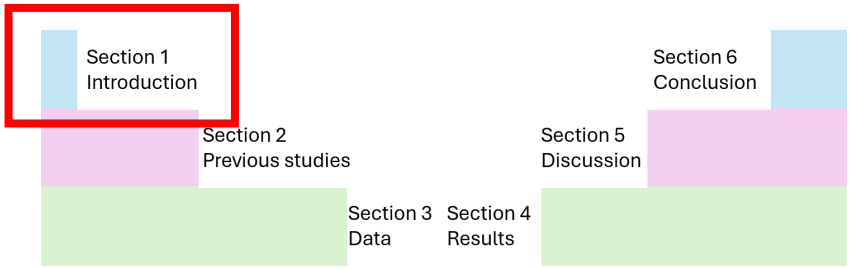
(ii) Subject happened.

    - b. **Unergatives**

few (i) Subject was walked.

(ii) Subject walked.

  - 2) Relatively advanced learners > beginners



I Introduction

Until recent years, the scarcity of serious research on lexical development was a concern for Second Language (L2) researchers interested in the grammatical analysis of interlanguage (IL) systems (G 19 cha an gra 19 19 19 ffs, to tly of 94; ffs, ul, ost

conspicuous IL English phenomena that many of these studies have noted is exemplified in (1):

1) a. * The most memorable experience of my life was happened 15 years ago.

Topics

- General concern: Interlanguage
- Specific phenomenon: [1]

Previous literature

- 1970s: people knew the errors
- 1980s-: notable generalizations
  - 1) Skewed distribution
  - 2) Relatively advanced learners > beginners

According to the unaccusative hypothesis (Perlmutter, 1978; Burzio, 1986), unaccusative verbs (e.g., *arrive* and *fall*) are one of the two major classes of intransitive verbs and contrast with unergative verbs (e.g., *laugh* and *walk*). Although their distinction may be ultimately determined semantically (Labelle, 1990; Levin and Rappaport Hovav, 1995; Kageyama, 1996), it can be clearly illustrated at the argument structure level, where the lexicosyntactic pro tw are the of lik ween the en they because teristics behaves

Commentary: unaccusatives

- Transitives
- Intransitives
  - A. unaccusatives
  - B. unergatives

In (argu obj internal ect and ergative

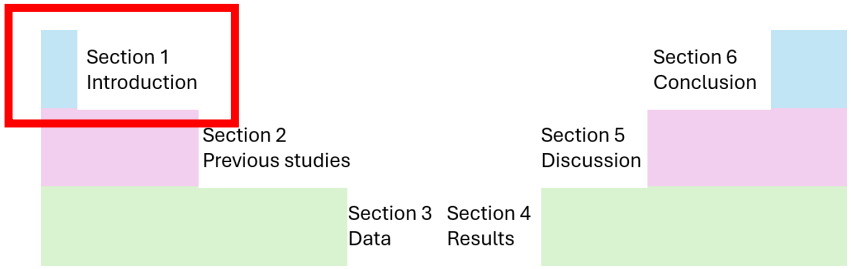
distinction is not always obvious is that, through syntactic movement, the internal argument of unaccusatives often assumes the surface subject role as does the external argument of unergatives. Furthermore, some alternating unaccusatives such as *break* and *increase* exhibit transitive as well as intransitive syntactic behaviour[1] because they have the dyadic argument structure of (2a) in addition to the monadic (2b).[2] The verbal classifications just discussed are summarized in (3):

The primary aim of this article is to address the issue of the 'origin' of the IL English phenomenon[3] exemplified in (1a)–(1e), which is referred to here as the 'passive' unaccusative, due to its apparent resemblance to the English passive construction with the auxiliary verb *be* followed by the past participle of a transitive verb.

Current paper

- Discussing the origin of 'passive' unaccuatives
- RQ: what is the most plausible account?
- Claim: Overt marker of NP movement

movement, which is an overgeneralization of the passive morphosyntax of the target English.



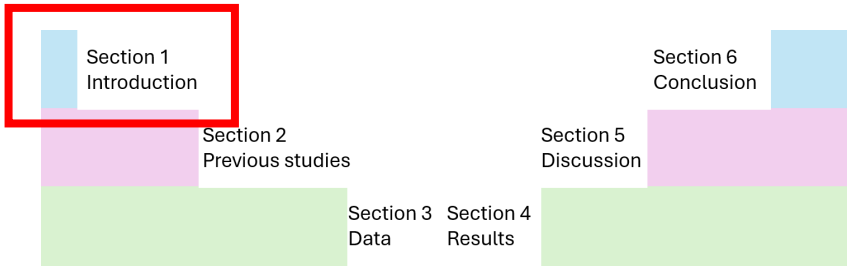
According to the unaccusative hypothesis (Perlmutter, 1978; Burzio, 1986), unaccusative verbs (e.g., *arrive* and *fall*) are one of the two major classes of intransitive verbs and contrast with unergative verbs (e.g., *laugh* and *walk*). Although their distinction may be ultimately determined semantically (Labelle, 1990; Levin and Rappaport Hovav, 1995; Kageyama, 1996), it can be clearly illustrated at the argument structure level, where the lexicosyntactic properties of predicates are represented. The contrast between the two classes of intransitives becomes particularly clear when they are compared with transitive verbs (e.g., *crush* and *bring*) because the argument of unaccusatives exhibits the syntactic characteristics of the object of a transitive verb while that of unergatives behaves like the subject (Oshita, 1997; and references cited there).

2) a. Causative argument structure: (x <y>)
   b. Unaccusative argument structure: (ø <y>)
   c. Unergative argument structure: (x <ø>)

In (2), (x) and <y> stand for the external and the direct internal arguments, which correspond to the initial syntactic subject and object, respectively. The reason why the unaccusative/unergative distinction is not always obvious is that, through syntactic movement, the internal argument of unaccusatives often assumes the surface subject role as does the external argument of unergatives. Furthermore, some alternating unaccusatives such as *break* and *increase* exhibit transitive as well as intransitive syntactic behaviour[1] because they have the dyadic argument structure of (2a) in addition to the monadic (2b).[2] The verbal classifications just discussed are summarized in (3):

Commentary: unaccusatives

- Transitives
- Intransitives
  - A. unaccusatives
  - B. unergatives



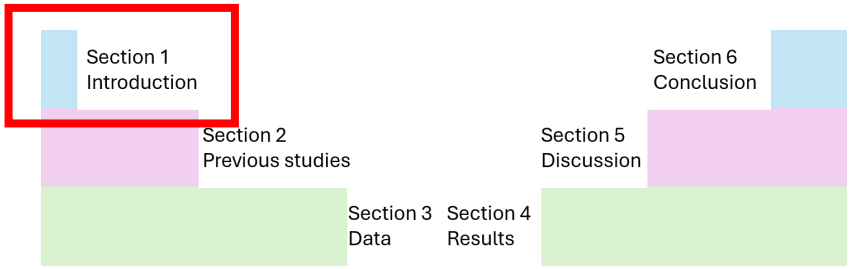
According to the unaccusative hypothesis (Perlmutter, 1978; Burzio, 1986), unaccusative verbs (e.g., *arrive* and *fall*) are one of the two major classes of intransitive verbs and contrast with unergative verbs (e.g., *laugh* and *walk*). Although their distinction may be ultimately determined semantically (Labelle, 1990; Levin and Rappaport Hovav, 1995; Kageyama, 1996), it can be clearly illustrated at the argument structure level, where the lexicosyntactic properties of predicates are represented. The contrast between the two classes of intransitives becomes particularly clear when they are compared with transitive verbs (e.g., *crush* and *bring*) because the argument of unaccusatives exhibits the syntactic characteristics of the object of a transitive verb while that of unergatives behaves like the subject (Oshita, 1997; and references cited there).

2) a. Causative argument structure: (x <y>)
   b. Unaccusative argument structure: (ø <y>)
   c. Unergative argument structure: (x <ø>)

In (2), (x) and <y> stand for the external and the direct internal arguments, which correspond to the initial syntactic subject and object, respectively. The reason why the unaccusative/unergative distinction is not always obvious is that, through syntactic movement, the internal argument of unaccusatives often assumes the surface subject role as does the external argument of unergatives. Furthermore, some alternating unaccusatives such as *break* and *increase* exhibit transitive as well as intransitive syntactic behaviour[1] because they have the dyadic argument structure of (2a) in addition to the monadic (2b).[2] The verbal classifications just discussed are summarized in (3):

Commentary: unaccusatives

- Transitives
- Intransitives
  - A. unaccusatives
  - B. unergatives



According to the unaccusative hypothesis (Perlmutter, 1978; Burzio, 1986), unaccusative verbs (e.g., *arrive* and *fall*) are one of the two major classes of intransitive verbs and contrast with unergative verbs (e.g., *laugh* and *walk*). Although their distinction may be ultimately determined semantically (Labelle, 1990; Levin and Rappaport Hovav, 1995; Kageyama, 1996), it can be clearly illustrated at the argument structure level, where the lexicosyntactic properties of predicates are represented. The contrast between the two classes of intransitives becomes particularly clear when they are compared with transitive verbs (e.g., *crush* and *bring*) because the argument of unaccusatives exhibits the syntactic characteristics of the object of a transitive verb while that of unergatives behaves like the subject (Oshita, 1997; and references cited there).

2) a. Causative argument structure: (x <y>)
   b. Unaccusative argument structure: (ø <y>)
   c. Unergative argument structure: (x <ø>)

In (2), (x) and <y> stand for the external and the direct internal arguments, which correspond to the initial syntactic subject and object, respectively. The reason why the unaccusative/unergative distinction is not always obvious is that, through syntactic movement, the internal argument of unaccusatives often assumes the surface subject role as does the external argument of unergatives. Furthermore, some alternating unaccusatives such as *break* and *increase* exhibit transitive as well as intransitive syntactic behaviour[1] because they have the dyadic argument structure of (2a) in addition to the monadic (2b).[2] The verbal classifications just discussed are summarized in (3):

Commentary: unaccusatives

Permutter (1978)
Burzio (1986)

- Transitives

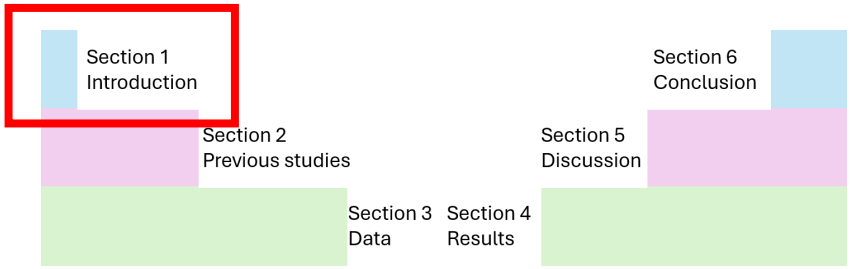
  John **broke** **the vase** .
  x **<y>**

- Intransitives
  - A. unaccusatives

    The vase **broke** .
    <y>

  - B. unergatives

    John **laughed** .
    x



I Introduction

Until recent years, the scarcity of serious research on lexical development was a concern for Second Language (L2) researchers interested in the grammatical analysis of interlanguage (IL) systems

Topics

- General concern: Interlanguage
- Specific phenomenon: [1]

conspicuous IL English phenomena that many of these studies have noted is exemplified in (1):

1) a. * The most memorable experience of my life was happened 15 years ago.

Previous literature

- 1970s: people knew the errors
- 1980s-: notable generalizations
  - 1) Skewed distribution
  - 2) Relatively advanced learners > beginners

According to the unaccusative hypothesis (Perlmutter, 1978; Burzio, 1986), unaccusative verbs (e.g., *arrive* and *fall*) are one of the two major classes of intransitive verbs and contrast with unergative verbs (e.g., *laugh* and *walk*). Although their distinction may be ultimately determined semantically (Labelle, 1990; Levin and Rappaport Hovav, 1995; Kageyama, 1996), it can be clearly illustrated at the argument structure level, where the lexicosyntactic

Commentary: unaccusatives

- Transitives
- Intransitives
  - A. unaccusatives
  - B. unergatives

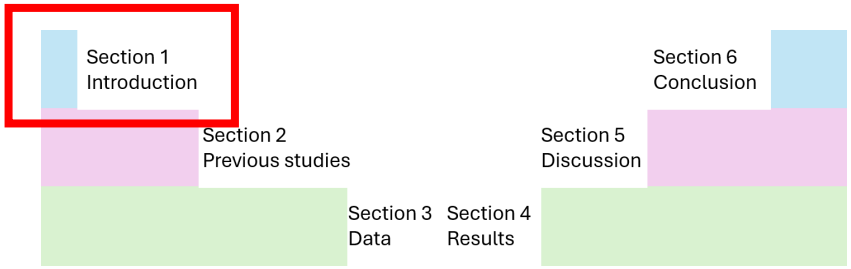
distinction is not always obvious is that, through syntactic movement, the internal argument of unaccusatives often assumes the surface subject role as does the external argument of unergatives. Furthermore, some alternating unaccusatives such as *break* and *increase* exhibit transitive as well as intransitive syntactic behaviour[1] because they have the dyadic argument structure of (2a) in addition to the monadic (2b).[2] The verbal classifications just discussed are summarized in (3):

The primary aim of this article is to address the issue of the 'origin' of the IL English phenomenon[3] exemplified in (1a)–(1e), which is referred to here as the 'passive' unaccusative, due to its apparent resemblance to the English passive construction with the auxiliary verb *be* followed by the past participle of a transitive verb.

Current paper

- Discussing the origin of 'passive' unaccuatives
- RQ: what is the most plausible account?

movement, which is an overgeneralization of the passive morphosyntax of the target English.



The primary aim of this article is to address the issue of the 'origin' of the IL English phenomenon[3] exemplified in (1a)–(1e), which is referred to here as the 'passive' unaccusative, due to its apparent resemblance to the English passive construction with the auxiliary verb *be* followed by the past participle of a transitive verb. I review the following five major accounts of this structure found in the L2 acquisition literature:

4) a. transfer of a compound tense/aspect system in the learner's first language (L1);
   b. overgeneralization of the adjectival passive formation in English;
   c. nontarget lexical causativization;
   d. identification of the passive morphosyntax with the lack of a logical subject; and
   e. nontarget overt marking of syntactic NP movement.

With each one of these accounts, I carefully tease out and consider the linguistic questions involved. I show that most of these accounts are, at best questionable in light of the data and observations currently available in the literature; even the most promising analysis requires more extensive data to be fully supported. Accordingly, the second half of the article re-examines the previous analyses with a new set of crosslinguistic data obtained from a large corpus of L2 English. Finally, I argue that when all things are considered, the most plausible account of the 'passive' unaccusative structure is to regard it as an overt marker of syntactic NP movement, which is an overgeneralization of the passive morphosyntax of the target English.

Current paper

- Discussing the origin of 'passive' unaccuatives
- RQ: what is the most plausible account?



- Claim: Overt marker of NP movement

Tagsets

Depending on the language and the NLP task different tagsets can be applied. Popular English tagsets are:

- Penn Treebank Tagset
- Tagset of Brown Corpus
- Tagset of the British National Corpus

Penn Treebank POS Tags

A visual guide to all 46 part-of-speech tags, with examples and tagged sentences



Tag Families at a Glance

36 standard tags plus 10 punctuation and symbol tags, grouped by role

Noun

NN NNS NNP NNPS

Verb

VB VBD VBG VBN VBP VBZ

Adjective

JJ JJR JJS

Adverb

RB RBR RBS

Pronoun

PRP PRP$ POS

Determiner

DT PDT CD

Wh-words

WDT WP WP$ WRB

Function Words

CC IN TO RP

Special Words

MD EX UH

Non-standard

FW LS SYM

Punctuation

$ # `` '' ( ) , . : --

46

tags in 11 groups

Noun

People, places, things and ideas · NN NNS NNP NNPS

NN **Noun: singular or mass**

e.g. dog, water, happiness

```
The dog drinks water .
DT  NN  VBZ    NN    .
```

NNS **Noun: plural**

e.g. dogs, books, children

```
The children read books .
DT  NNS      VBD  NNS   .
```

NNP **Proper noun: singular**

e.g. Tokyo, Alice, Google

```
Alice lives in Tokyo .
NNP   VBZ   IN NNP   .
```

NNPS **Proper noun: plural**

e.g. Alps, Smiths, Americans

```
The Smiths visited the Alps .
DT  NNPS   VBD     DT  NNPS .
```

Verb

Actions and states · VB VBD VBG VBN VBP VBZ

VB **Verb: base form**

e.g. eat, go, be

```
I   can swim .
PRP MD  VB   .
```

VBD **Verb: past tense**

e.g. ate, went, was

```
She visited Paris .
PRP VBD     NNP   .
```

VBG **Verb: gerund or present participle**

e.g. eating, going, being

```
He  is  reading .
PRP VBZ VBG     .
```

VBN **Verb: past participle**

e.g. eaten, gone, been

```
It  was broken .
PRP VBD VBN    .
```

VBP **Verb: non-3rd person singular present**

e.g. eat, go, are

```
They play tennis .
PRP  VBP  NN     .
```

VBZ **Verb: 3rd person singular present**

e.g. eats, goes, is

```
She plays tennis .
PRP VBZ   NN     .
```

Practice 1

Nouns & Verbs · Click to reveal the hidden words and their tags

1	The **teacher** **reads** a story .	DT ? ? DT NN .
2	My **friends** **visited** **Kyoto** last summer .	PRP$? ? ? JJ NN .
3	**Birds** can **fly** .	? MD ? .
4	She is **writing** a **letter** .	PRP VBZ ? DT ? .
5	The **window** was **broken** by **Tom** .	DT ? VBD ? IN ? .
6	The **Rockies** **stretch** across Canada .	DT ? ? IN NNP .

Adjective

Words that describe nouns · JJ JJR JJS

JJ — Adjective or ordinal numeral

e.g. third, ill-mannered, pre-war, regrettable, oiled, calamitous, first, separable, ectoplasmic, fourth, multilingual ...

EXAMPLE SENTENCE

She	has	a	**red**	car	.
PRP	VBZ	DT	**JJ**	NN	.

JJR — Adjective: comparative

e.g. bleaker, braver, breezier, briefer, brighter, brisker, broader, busier, calmer, cheaper, cleaner, closer, colder ...

EXAMPLE SENTENCE

This	is	**bigger**	than	that	.
DT	VBZ	**JJR**	IN	DT	.

JJS — Adjective: superlative

e.g. calmest, cheapest, choicest, classiest, cleanest, clearest, closest, commonest, darkest, deadliest, deepest ...

EXAMPLE SENTENCE

She	is	the	**tallest**	player	.
PRP	VBZ	DT	**JJS**	NN	.

Adverb

Words that modify verbs, adjectives and other adverbs · RB RBR RBS

RB Adverb

e.g. occasionally, unabatingly, maddeningly, adventurously, professedly, prominently, technologically, swiftly, fiscally ...

EXAMPLE SENTENCE

```
He  runs very quickly .
PRP VBZ  RB   RB      .
```

RBR Adverb: comparative

e.g. further, gloomier, grander, greater, harder, harsher, healthier, higher, larger, later, longer, louder, lower, more ...

EXAMPLE SENTENCE

```
She runs faster than me   .
PRP VBZ  RBR    IN   PRP .
```

RBS Adverb: superlative

e.g. best, biggest, earliest, farthest, first, furthest, hardest, highest, largest, least, most, nearest, tightest, worst

EXAMPLE SENTENCE

```
He  works hardest .
PRP VBZ   RBS     .
```

Practice 2

Adjectives & Adverbs · Click to reveal the hidden words and their tags

1	A	DT
	tall	?
	man	NN
	walked	VBD
	slowly	?
	.	.
2	This	DT
	bag	NN
	is	VBZ
	cheaper	?
	than	IN
	that	DT
	one	NN
	.	.
3	He	PRP
	is	VBZ
	the	DT
	youngest	?
	player	NN
	.	.
4	Tom	NNP
	runs	VBZ
	faster	?
	than	IN
	Ken	NNP
	.	.
5	The	DT
	soup	NN
	is	VBZ
	very	?
	hot	?
	.	.
6	She	PRP
	works	VBZ
	hardest	?
	.	.

Pronoun & Possessive

Words that stand in for, or belong to, nouns · PRP PRP$ POS

PRP — Personal pronoun

e.g. hers, herself, him, himself, it, itself, me, myself, one, oneself, ours, ourselves, she, them, themselves, they, us

EXAMPLE SENTENCE

```
She gave him a  gift .
PRP VBD  PRP DT NN   .
```

PRP$ — Possessive pronoun

e.g. her, his, mine, my, our, ours, their, thy, your

EXAMPLE SENTENCE

```
He  loves his  dog .
PRP VBZ   PRP$ NN  .
```

POS — Possessive ending

e.g. ', 's

EXAMPLE SENTENCE

```
John 's  car is  red .
NNP  POS NN  VBZ JJ  .
```

Determiner & Number

Words that introduce or quantify nouns · DT PDT CD

DT Determiner

e.g. all, an, another, any, both, each, either, every, half, many, much, neither, no, some, such, that, the, these, this, those

EXAMPLE SENTENCE

The	cat	sat	on	a	mat	.
DT	NN	VBD	IN	DT	NN	.

PDT Predeterminer

e.g. all, both, half, many, quite, such, sure, this

EXAMPLE SENTENCE

All	the	students	passed	.
PDT	DT	NNS	VBD	.

CD Cardinal number

e.g. mid-1890, nine-thirty, forty-two, one-tenth, ten million, 0.5, one, 1987, twenty, '79, zero, IX, '60s, .025, dozen ...

EXAMPLE SENTENCE

She	bought	three	apples	.
PRP	VBD	CD	NNS	.

Wh-words

Question and relative words · WDT WP WP$ WRB

WDT — Wh-determiner

e.g. that, what, whatever, which, whichever

```
The  book  which  I    read  .
DT   NN    WDT    PRP  VBD   .
```

WP — Wh-pronoun

e.g. that, what, whatever, whatsoever, which, who, whom, whosoever

```
Who  called  you  ?
WP   VBD     PRP  .
```

WP$ — Possessive wh-pronoun

e.g. whose

```
The  boy  whose  cat  sings  left  .
DT   NN   WP$    NN   VBZ    VBD   .
```

WRB — Wh-adverb

e.g. how, however, whence, whenever, where, whereby, whereever, wherein, whereof, why

```
Where  do   you  live  ?
WRB    VBP  PRP  VB    .
```

Practice 3

Pronouns, Determiners & Wh-words · Click to reveal the hidden words and their tags

1	**They** love **their** new teacher .	? VBP ? JJ NN .
2	**All** **the** students brought **two** books .	? ? NNS VBD ? NNS .
3	Mary **'s** brother gave **her** a gift .	NNP ? NN VBD ? DT NN .
4	**Who** knows the girl **whose** bag is red ?	? VBZ DT NN ? NN VBZ JJ .
5	This is the house **which** Jack built .	DT VBZ DT NN ? NNP VBD .
6	**Where** did you buy **those** shoes ?	? VBD PRP VB ? NNS .

Function Words

Grammatical glue · CC IN TO RP

CC — Coordinating conjunction

e.g. &, 'n, and, both, but, either, et, for, less, minus, neither, nor, or, plus, so, therefore, times, versus, vs., whether, yet

```
Tea and coffee are hot .
NN  CC  NN     VBP JJ  .
```

IN — Preposition or subordinating conjunction

e.g. among, whether, inside, despite, on, by, throughout, below, within, for, towards, near, behind, atop, around, if, like, until, into, beside

```
I   sit at home if it  rains .
PRP VBP IN NN   IN PRP VBZ   .
```

TO — The word “to”

e.g. to (as preposition or infinitive marker)

```
I   want to go to Osaka .
PRP VBP  TO VB TO NNP   .
```

RP — Particle

e.g. aboard, about, across, along, apart, around, aside, at, away, back, behind, by, down, forth, in, off, on, out, over, through, under, up, upon, with

```
She picked up the phone .
PRP VBD    RP DT  NN    .
```

Special Words

Small word classes with their own tags · MD EX UH

MD — Modal

e.g. can, cannot, could, couldn't, dare, may, might, must, need, ought, shall, should, shouldn't, will, would

EXAMPLE SENTENCE

```
You can do it  .
PRP MD  VB PRP .
```

EX — Existential there

e.g. there

EXAMPLE SENTENCE

```
There is  a  cat on the roof .
EX    VBZ DT NN  IN DT  NN   .
```

UH — Interjection

e.g. Goodbye, Gosh, Wow, Jeepers, Hubba, Hey, Oops, amen, huh, howdy, uh, dammit, shucks, heck, golly, man, baby ...

EXAMPLE SENTENCE

```
Wow , that is  amazing !
UH  , DT   VBZ JJ      .
```

Non-standard Items

Foreign words, list markers and symbols · FW LS SYM

FW — Foreign word

e.g. gemeinschaft, hund, ich, jeux, habeas, Herr, vous, alai, je, jour, objets, fille, quibusdam, pas, trop, oui, corporis ...

EXAMPLE SENTENCE

She	whispered	carpe	diem	.
PRP	VBD	**FW**	**FW**	.

LS — List item marker

e.g. A, A., B, B., C, D, First, One, Second, Third, Two, a, b, c, d, first, five, four, one, six, three, two

EXAMPLE SENTENCE

a	)	Wash	the	rice	.
LS	)	VB	DT	NN	.

SYM — Symbol

e.g. %, &, *, +, <, =, >, @, U.S, U.S.S.R

EXAMPLE SENTENCE

2	+	3	=	5
CD	**SYM**	CD	**SYM**	CD

Punctuation

Sentence-level marks · , . : --

, **Comma**

e.g. ,

```
Yes , I   agree .
UH  , PRP VBP   .
```

. **Sentence-final punctuation**

e.g. .!?

```
Is  it  true ?
VBZ PRP JJ   .
```

: **Colon, semicolon, dash, ellipsis**

e.g. :; ...

```
I   have one goal : win .
PRP VBP  CD  NN   : VB  .
```

-- **Dash**

e.g. --

```
He  left -- quietly .
PRP VBD  -- RB      .
```

Symbols, Quotes & Brackets

In parsed trees, (and) appear as -LRB- and -RRB-

$ Currency symbol

e.g. $, -$, --$, A$, C$, HK$, M$, US$

```
It  costs $ 5  .
PRP VBZ   $ CD .
```

Pound sign

e.g. #

```
Room # 12 is  open .
NN   # CD VBZ JJ   .
```

`` Opening quotation mark

e.g. `, ``

```
He  said `` hi '' .
PRP VBD  `` UH '' .
```

'' Closing quotation mark

e.g. ', ''

```
He  said `` hi '' .
PRP VBD  `` UH '' .
```

(Opening bracket

e.g. (, [, {

```
He  left ( early ) .
PRP VBD  ( RB    ) .
```

) Closing bracket

e.g.),], }

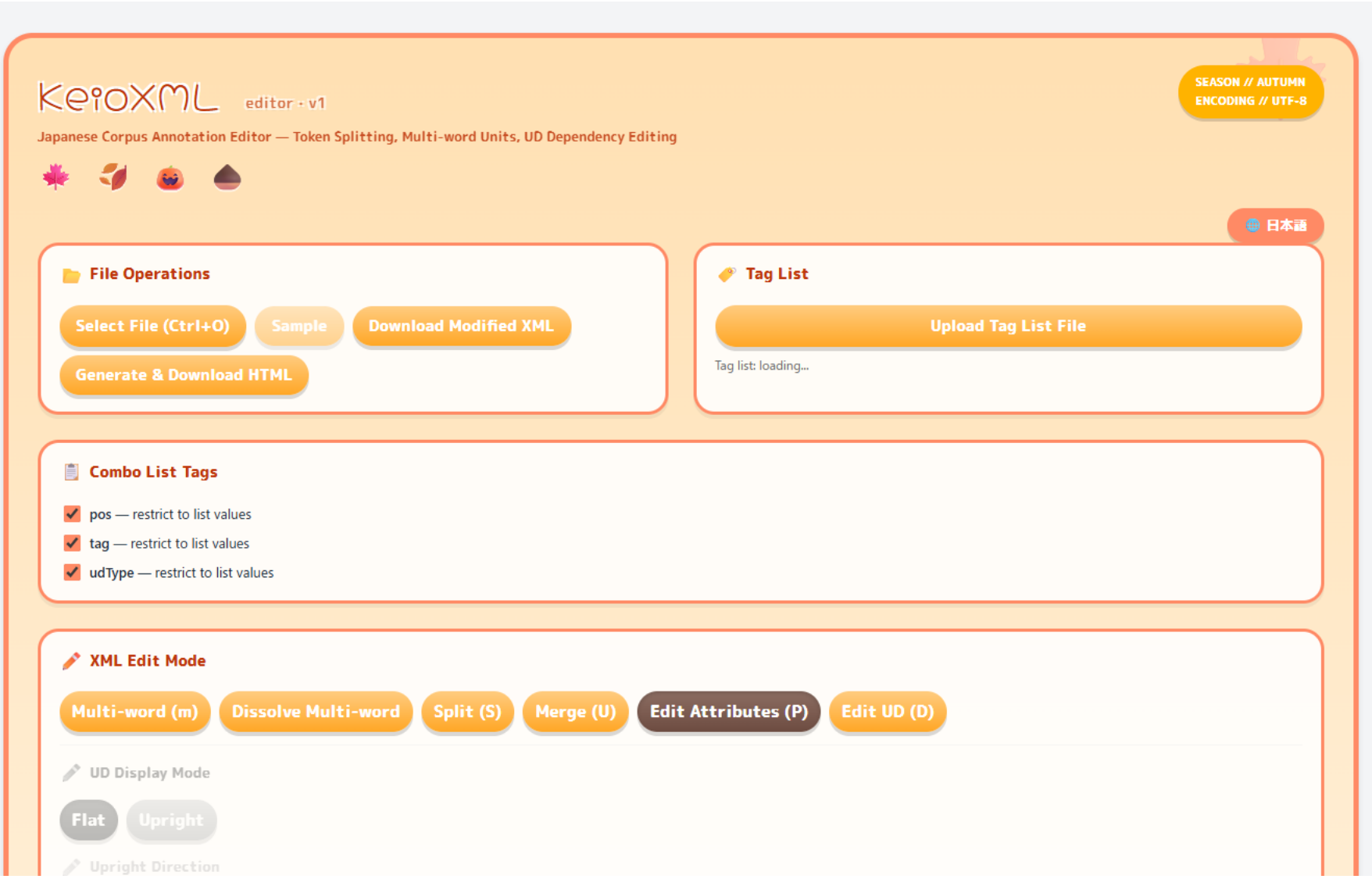
```
He  left ( early ) .
PRP VBD  ( RB    ) .
```

Practice 4

Function Words to Punctuation · Click to reveal the hidden words and their tags

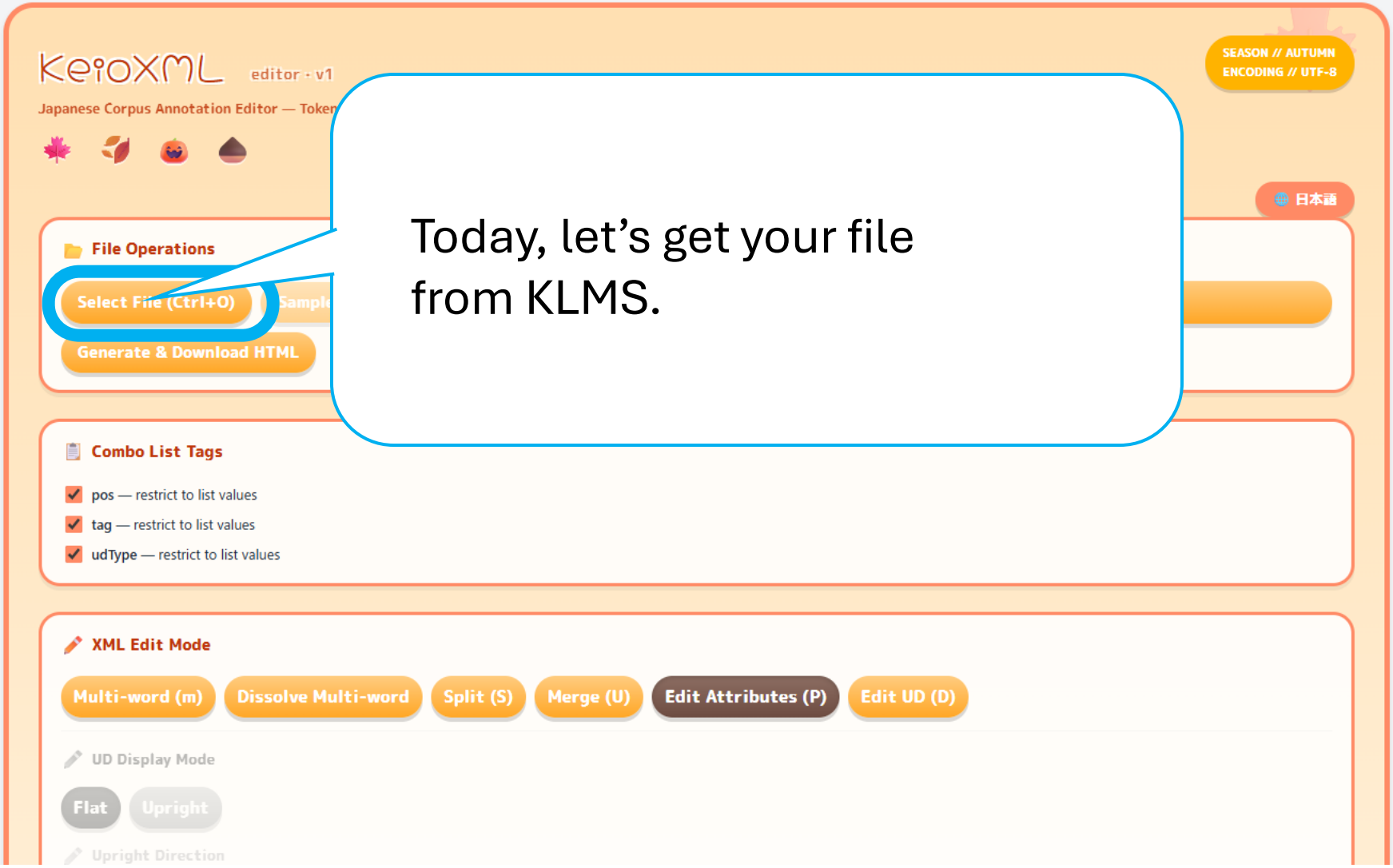
1	Tom **and** Mary went **to** the park .	NNP **?** NNP VBD **?** DT NN .
2	You **must** turn **off** the light .	PRP **?** VB **?** DT NN .
3	**There** is a bird **in** the tree .	**?** VBZ DT NN **?** DT NN .
4	**Wow** , the cake costs $ 5 !	**?** **?** DT NN VBZ **?** CD **?**
5	She said `` **carpe diem** '' .	PRP VBD **?** **?** **?** **?** .
6	**a**) Add 2 **+** 3 .	**?** **?** VB CD **?** CD .

KeioXLM editor



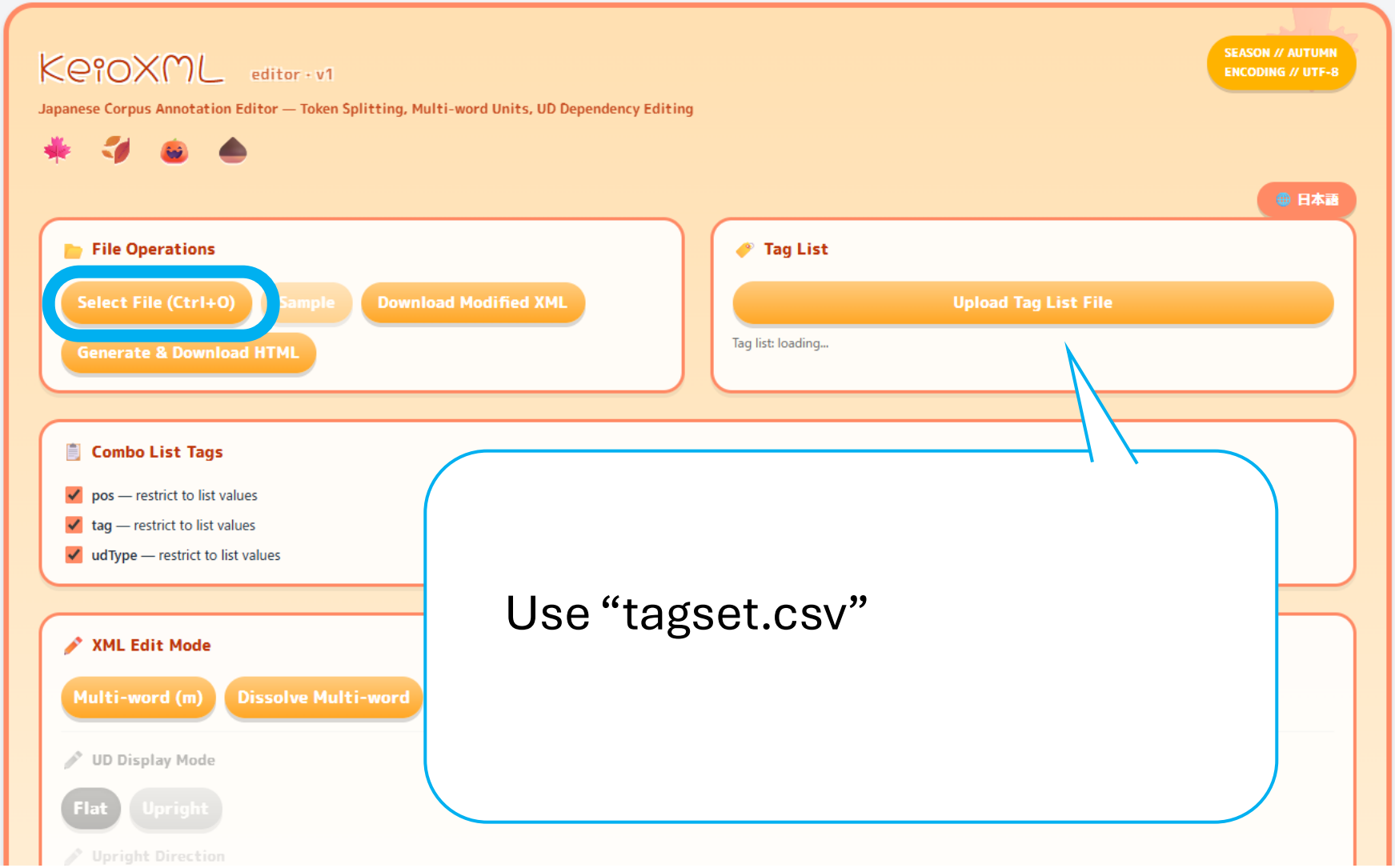
Task 1

Choose the file you want to edit.



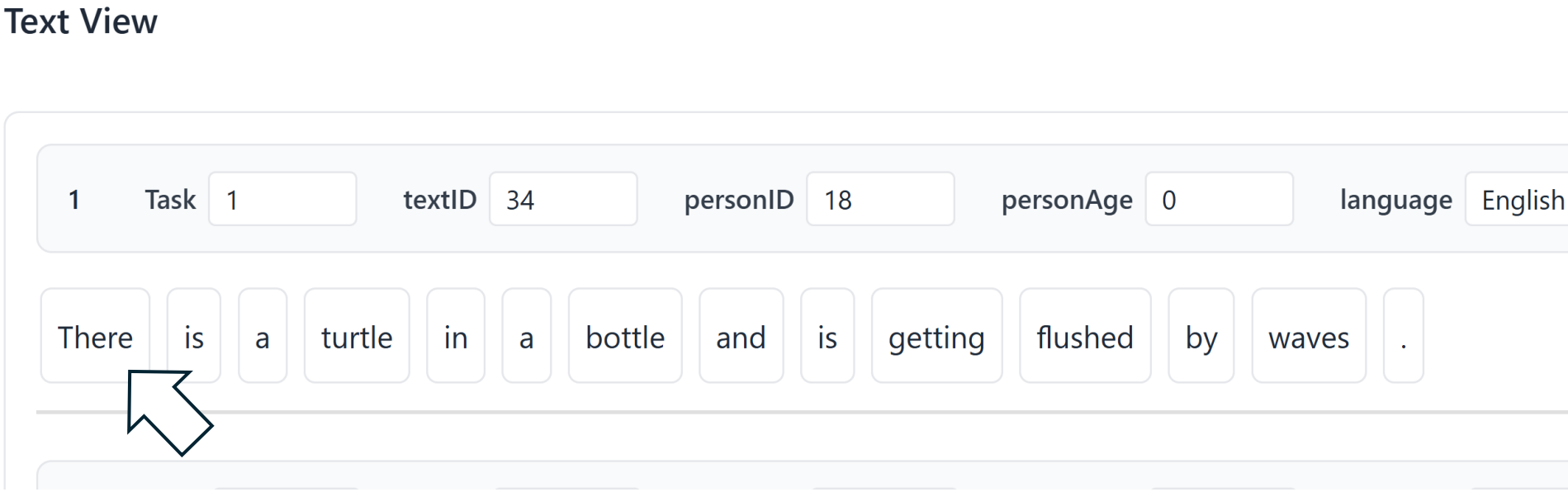
Task 1

Choose the file you want to edit.



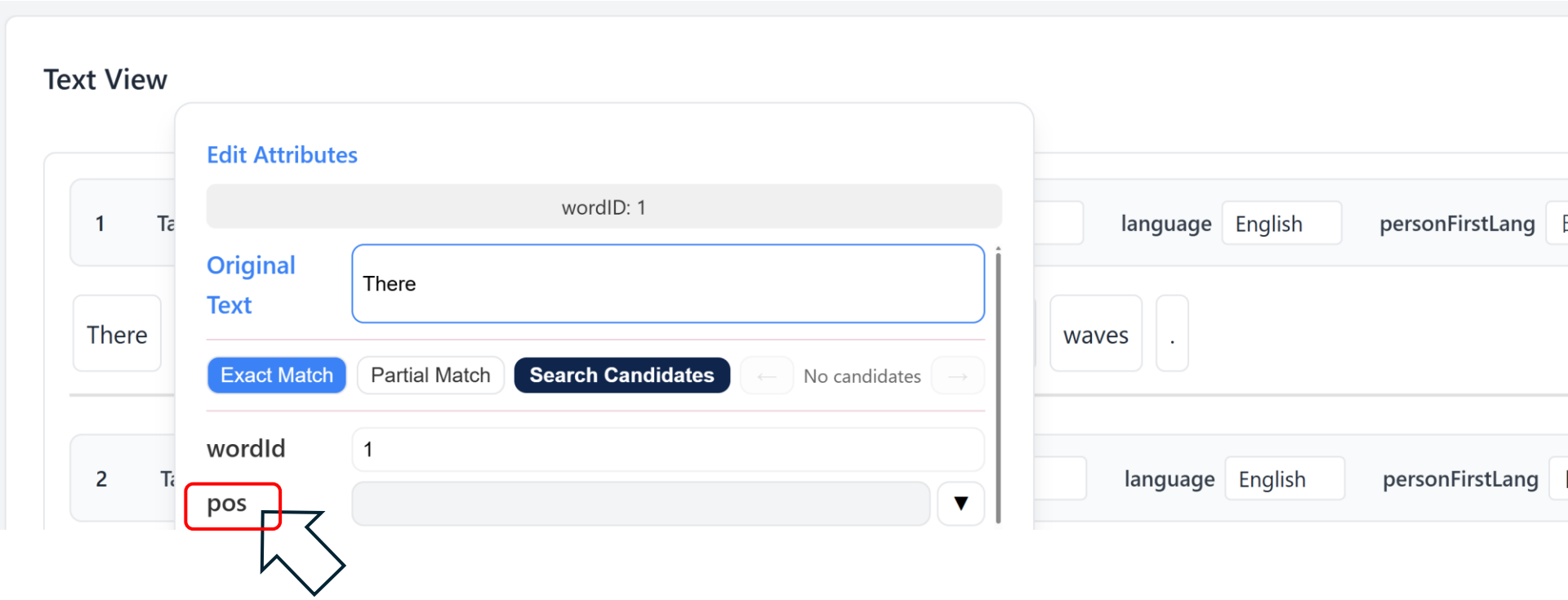
Task 2

Enjoy annotating your file!



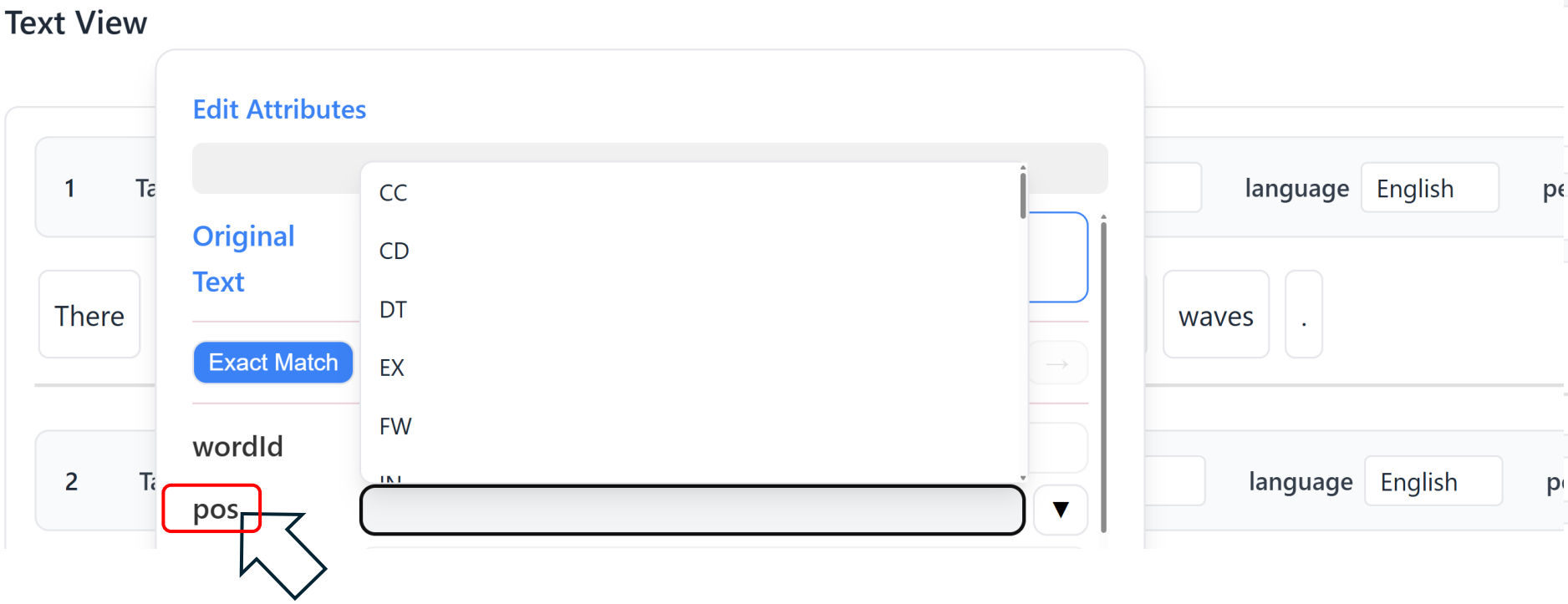
Task 2

Enjoy annotating your file!



Task 2

Enjoy annotating your file!



Task 2

Enjoy annotating your file!

